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Multi-faith in policy only? Religion and belief inequalities at UK universities since the Equality Act

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ABSTRACT

The Equality Act 2010 requires universities to eliminate harassment, ensure equality of opportunity and promote good relations for those of different religious or philosophical beliefs. The attention universities give to these obligations vary. This article analyses survey data from 4,618 students to examine religion and belief-related experiences and inequalities in universities in relation to the Equality Act's three foci: eliminating harassment; equal opportunities; and good relations. The article adopts the lens of equality/inequality, assessing differences between religious groups and types of university, and draws upon Ahmed's and Elgström's work on the complexity of equality policy implementation to account for the endurance of religion and belief-related inequalities. Despite the positioning of 'religion or belief' as a protected characteristic and diversity-friendly language such as 'multi-faith', inequalities remain, with religious students and students at certain types of university, especially vulnerable to unequal treatment compared to their peers.

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Introduction

In 2010, 'religion or belief' became one of nine characteristics protected under the Equality Act (2010). This Act consolidated previous legislation related to race, sex and disability, and expanded it to age, sexual orientation, marriage and civil partnership, religion or belief, gender reassignment and pregnancy and maternity. Subsequently, UK universities have been expected to ensure equality of opportunity, promote good relations and eliminate harassment for those sharing these protected characteristics. Yet the attention universities give to religion or belief equality, forging good relations across religious differences, and eliminating religion-related harassment varies. For example, some universities have extensive resources for religious students, encompassing religious diets, holidays, prayer space, chaplaincy and religious student societies. At others, provision is patchy. This article draws on survey data collected in 2022 from 4618 students at 133 UK universities. We examine

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students' experiences of religion or belief-related equality in universities in relation to the Equality Act's three foci (eliminating harassment; equal opportunities; and good relations), comparing differences between religious groups and different types of university. We will discuss these findings through the lens of equality/inequality, arguing that despite the positioning of religion or belief as a protected characteristic and diversity-friendly language such as 'multi-faith', inequalities remain, with some religious students especially vulnerable to unequal treatment, contrary to the conditions the Equality Act was intended to maintain.

The growth of religious diversity in the UK, the new statistical evidence of the size of religious communities, and the Employment Equality (Religion or Belief) Regulations 2003 informed the context for introducing the Equality Act (2010) (Aspinall 2000). The Act accorded new protection to 'religion or belief' groups, although the reaction to the legislation by religious groups was, as Vickers (2011b) predicted, not universally positive (Purdam et al. 2017).

Equality statistics have been collected in higher education in England since at least 2010 (OfS 2022, 15–16) and are included in Advance HE's annual reports. Evidence from Weller, Hooley, and Moore (2011) helped persuade HESA in 2012–2013 to request universities to collect data on religion and belief (Weller and Hooley 2017); data collection became mandatory from 2017 to 2018 (OfS 2022, 15, 22), with collection rates rising. The Office for Students' data from 2020 to 2021 on student characteristics show that 46.2% of undergraduate entrants said they had no religion, 32.1% said they were Christian and 13.0% identified as Muslim; postgraduates were slightly more likely to report no religion (47.1%) than undergraduates (OfS 2022, 9).

Literature review

There has been a notable neglect of religion in UK higher education research (Stevenson 2014), but this is changing. This article contributes to this growing body of research. Research reviewed below relates to the three foci of the Equality Act, indicating how far universities are eliminating discrimination and harassment, advancing equality of opportunity and fostering good relations. The research reported below focuses on religion and belief among students; the topic of religion and belief amongst staff requires separate investigation.

Several caveats are needed. While statistics on discrimination and harassment give cause for concern, most survey data featured below is gathered from volunteer samples. This sampling strategy does not account for the ways experience of harassment may influence one's response rate, making generalisation challenging. Second, what students consider to be harassment may not be the same as what university or legal investigations might establish has taken place. Third, marginalisation can coexist with progress towards inclusion. As Hopkins (2011) observed through analysis of interviews with 29 Muslim students at one university, students emphasise both the liberal and tolerant nature of the university and the discrimination or exclusion they face.

Discrimination and harassment research

A survey undertaken by Weller, Hooley, and Moore (2011) for the Equality Challenge Unit (ECU, now incorporated into Advance HE) found 6.1% of 3935 students reporting

discrimination or harassment on the grounds of religion or belief. This figure was higher for Jewish (27%), Sikh (17%) and Muslim students (14%). However, less than 1.7% of students had made a formal complaint about this. A survey of 925 Jewish students conducted around the same time found that a fifth said they had been subjected to antisemitism that academic year, and a further third had witnessed an antisemitic incident on campus (Graham and Boyd 2011). Jewish, Muslim and Sikh students were most likely to have experienced such hate incidents. Aune et al.'s (2020) survey of students at one UK university found that 6.5% of 612 students surveyed said that they had, since coming to university, personally experienced a religion-related hate incident/crime. A contemporaneous nationwide study found a 'climate of prejudice' against Muslims across UK universities, fuelled by entrenched stereotypes, often perpetuated by mass media, and government counter-terrorism measures which reinforced suspicion among students and staff (Scott-Baumann et al. 2020, 131). The experience of Muslim students in further and higher education was investigated by the NUS (2018), who found a third (of 578) had experienced abuse or crime at their institution, with one in five subjected to verbal abuse. Echoing Hopkins' (2011) point, Saeed's interviews with 40 Muslim students reveal that positive work to counter harassment coexists with Islamophobia in UK universities (Saeed 2018). Before the events of 7 October 2023, the Community Security Trust reported a 22% increase in on-campus antisemitic incidents compared to two years previously; most were online and spiked when the Israel-Palestine conflict escalated (Harris and Goldberg 2023).

Advancing equality of opportunity research

Weller, Hooley, and Moore studied university data collection on religion. Over 80% of students said they would disclose the information. Buddhists and Pagans were less comfortable disclosing, possibly due to concerns about state surveillance (Weller and Hooley 2017, 42–43). Around 10% of students disagreed or strongly disagreed that the course teaching or content 'is sensitive to my religion or belief' (Weller and Hooley 2017, 48).

Religious calendars can conflict with the calendars of UK universities. Whether universities make allowances to enable students to celebrate religious festivals when they conflict with teaching or exams varies (Weller, Hooley, and Moore 2011). Non-Christian students may feel excluded by Christian elements in university ceremonies, for example, prayer at graduation. Religious students may feel likewise marginalised when universities exclusively champion secular or secularist values (Weller and Hooley 2017).

Religious barriers to financing higher education are highlighted by Avdukic et al. (2023), who discuss Somali students influenced by interpretations of some Shari'ah scholars that interest-bearing loans constitute usury (*ribā*). If Somali students see their religion as prohibiting taking out interest-bearing loans—and they find some do—this indicates that the government has failed to create a student finance system equally accessible to all groups.¹

Miles and Benn (2016) discuss the extent to which one university's sports activities are equally accessible to Muslim women. The mixed-sex organisation of many and the dominance of male coaches present barriers due to Islamic expectations around modesty.

Research addressing whether students of particular religions are less likely to reach their academic potential finds a significant Muslim awarding gap; Muslims are the religious group least likely to graduate with a first-class or upper second-class degree (Codioli

Mcmaster 2020). Some explain this in terms of Islamophobia or conflate Islamophobia with racism, but Gholami (2021) points to the intersection of religion and race.

Chaplaincy is an important religious resource in universities. Research undertaken by Aune et al. (2019) found that there are around 1000 chaplains in UK universities (2019, 11); the average per institution is over 10, but almost two-thirds are volunteers. The proportion of chaplains from minority faiths increased in the period 2007 to 2017, from 30% to 37%, with numbers of Muslim (9%) and Jewish chaplains (8%) largest. A minority of universities have a Sikh, Hindu, Pagan or Humanist chaplain. The majority of chaplains (63%) are Christian, down from 70% in 2006–2007, but the picture is diversifying.

Chaplaincies are also increasingly called ‘multi-faith’ – a rise from 1 in 10 in 2006–2007 to 1 in 4 universities using this title in 2016–2017 (Aune et al. 2019, 31). In terms of faith spaces, the average university has 4.9 prayer spaces, and just over two-thirds have at least one permanent Muslim prayer space, a negligible rise since 2007. 59% have at least one chapel. (Aune et al. 2019, 31–35). Hopkins’s (2011) study of Muslim students notes that the discrimination they face is often spatial, with the university mosque located on the periphery of campus.

Fostering good relations research

Social relations between religious and non-religious students can be hampered by the presence of alcohol in social life. Weller, Hooley and Moore’s 2011 research found ‘groups of students whose attitudes towards alcohol consumption are defined by their religion or belief’ (Weller, Hooley, and Moore, 2011, 49) more likely to feel unable to participate in social activities.

Stevenson’s (2014, 56) interviews with 15 religious students in a post-1992 university found that students experienced being ‘othered’ because of their religious differences, with Christian students ridiculed for not having sex and Muslims for presumed association with terrorism or women’s oppression. A Jewish student was not given time off to celebrate Jewish festivals. Muslims or Sikhs who wore symbols of their faith felt particularly isolated. This isolation contrasted with the university’s public multicultural and internationalisation ethos and led them to socialise outside the university. Stevenson argues that universities should do more to create cross-cultural and interreligious dialogue; having an internationalisation strategy is not enough to ensure that students relate well on the ground.

Aune, Perfect and Ryan’s qualitative study of religious student societies found they offer vital support and friendship among religious minorities (Aune et al. 2025). They analyse this in terms of bonding and bridging social capital: students bond with likeminded others as they find support for their religion in a sometimes-hostile environment, but they do much less ‘bridging’ to others, for example, through interfaith activities. Sheldon’s (2016) research on the Israel-Palestine conflict at UK universities highlighted how combative debates can cause relations between groups to be damaged and contribute to the reinforcement of stereotypes.

The literature above shows that inequalities remain in the three areas of the Equality Act. Yet almost all the research was conducted before 2020, and except for one project, none considered these areas in relation to the Equality Act, or in relation to each other. The one project that did so, led by Dinham on religious literacy leadership in higher education, interviewed Vice Chancellors, university managers, staff and students about four policy

arenas: equalities and diversity; widening participation and social mobility; student experience; and fostering good campus relations. Senior managers had paid religion new attention, seeing it as part of ‘an “equality and diversity” brief’ (Dinham and Jones 2012, 192). They saw becoming more attentive to students’ faith as integral to their increased focus on the student experience. Some as preferable to focusing on preventing extremism saw fostering good relations, but interviewees regretted that there was sometimes a reluctance by student societies to work with chaplains. Dinham and Jones’ findings cover some of the same ground as this article, but ours focuses on student experiences, uses national survey data, and looks in greater detail at the three aspects of the Equality Act.

Religion and belief inequalities, the Equality Act (2010) and policy implementation in higher education

Within the Equality Act, the Public Sector Equality Duty (Section 149) came into force in 2011 (Equality Act 2010). The vast majority of universities, like police or government departments, are public authorities so are required, ‘to have due regard to the need to achieve the objectives set out under s149 of the Equality Act 2010’ to:

- a. Eliminate discrimination, harassment, victimisation and any other conduct that is prohibited by or under the Equality Act 2010;
- b. Advance equality of opportunity between persons who share a relevant protected characteristic and persons who do not share it;
- c. Foster good relations between persons who share a relevant protected characteristic and persons who do not share it.

On (b), the duty explains that:

Having due regard to the need to advance equality of opportunity ... involves having due regard, in particular, to the need to –

(c) encourage persons who share a relevant protected characteristic to participate in public life or in any other activity in which participation by such persons is disproportionately low. (Vickers 2011a, 43–44)

As Vickers (2011a, 54) points out, this emphasises ‘the idea of equality as inclusion and participation’ and moves beyond mere equality of opportunity. The term ‘due regard’ does not commit public authorities to a particular outcome, so arguably lends itself to a ‘tick box’ approach, but ‘to the need’ strengthens the obligations on public authorities (Vickers 2011b, 156). The Equality Act 2010 (Specific Duties) Regulations 2011 require public authorities to publish ‘equality objectives, at least every four years’ and ‘information to demonstrate their compliance with the public sector equality duty’.

The ECU’s (2012, 24) briefing for colleges and HEIs highlights that: ‘Religion or belief should therefore be taken to mean the full diversity of religious and belief affiliations within the UK, including non-religious and philosophical beliefs such as atheism, agnosticism and humanism’.

As we present data below on students’ experiences of religion or belief-related equality in universities, two things should be considered. First, the Equality Act coexists alongside other legislation universities must abide by, such as The Prevent Duty within the

Counter-Terrorism and Security Act 2015 and the Higher Education (Freedom of Speech) Act 2023, and these have different emphases, sometimes pulling universities in different directions. Second, although the Equality Act is ostensibly positive because it promotes action to address discrimination and marginalisation of students, law and policy can have unintended consequences: as Scott-Baumann et al. (2020) show, the counter-terrorism Prevent Duty has had a negative impact on Muslims, many of whom have felt unfairly targeted, monitored and stigmatised as a ‘suspect community’.

Policy implementation in universities, as anywhere, is complex. As Elgström (2000) shows in the case of gender equality being ‘mainstreamed’ in development and foreign aid policies in the EU, new norms must ‘fight their way into institutional thinking’, inhibited by their different interpretation among different actors. ‘Norm diffusion’ can occur, with widespread internalisation, but there is also ‘norm resistance’. Elgström highlights the role of ‘norm entrepreneurs’ who advocate for new norms, involving subsequent negotiations with co-actors. Norm adoption may be ‘formal’ (even if only lip service is paid) or ‘real’, internalized and adopted throughout the organisation (Elgström 2000, 458–59).

Ahmed’s work sheds further light on why EDI officers, the group most likely to be tasked with Equality Act implementation, may have been ineffective in furthering religion and belief equality, arguing that the focus given to producing race equality documentation conceals the university’s problems of racism. Ahmed (2007) considers the Race Relations Amendment Act (2000), which made the promotion of race equality a duty for public bodies as it is today within the Equality Act. With public bodies required to have a race equality policy and action plan, Ahmed (2007, 591) examines how policies ‘get translated into action’ in universities. Despite the recommendation to produce the race equality document *via* working groups, most higher education institutions tasked someone, often a newly appointed race equality or HR officer, to write it. It circulates, posted on a website or given to new staff, but ‘the dissemination of the document does not necessarily do anything’ (594).

Instead, Ahmed argues that these documents act as a kind of performance: ‘They are ways in which universities perform an image of themselves, and they are also ways in which universities perform in the sense of “doing well”’ (2007, 594). The existence of race equality documents becomes the evidence that educational institutions are achieving race equality, when the racism that necessitated them has not gone away. In this way, the documents, and the diversity languages within them, can actually ‘conceal[s] racism’ (606). Indeed, the EHRC’s (2019) inquiry into racial harassment in publicly funded universities reveals that it is still common. Ahmed concludes: ‘the idea that the document “does race” means that people can think that race has been “done”’ (599). Equality documents should be read critically to look for the gap between rhetoric and practice, and in this way, the gap between what they say and what they do can be revealed. We return to these arguments in the Discussion.

Methods

This article considers student survey data ($n=4618$) from The Interfaith Diversity Experiences and Attitudes Longitudinal Survey (IDEALS UK), collected in Autumn 2022. After ethical approval was obtained from the University [name and number to be added], the survey was conducted by the youth research agency YouthSight, which applied a quota sampling method to an existing panel of young adults based across the UK. The IDEALS

UK sample contains some sample bias, e.g. full-time, undergraduate, young (18–20), UK women studying STEM subjects are over-represented (see Table 1). Generalized ranking was applied to generate weights (Deville et al. 1993), matching the survey to a set of known percentages found in the UK HE population. This was done using gender, ethnicity, age, university type, level of study and religion, to make the resulting sample more representative of the UK HE sector.

The analysis focussed on questions related to the Equality Act's three areas (harassment, equal opportunities, and good relations). Questions selected were part of the IDEALS UK study on how to build positive relationships between university students across religion and worldview diversity. The study adopted the phrase 'religion and worldview' in response to the challenges posed by an increasingly complex and fragmented range of orientations to religious, spiritual and philosophical views within the contemporary UK. The study

Table 1. Unweighted and weighted sample, compared with HESA data (2021–2022).

	Unweighted	Weighted	HESA (2021–2022)
Uni Type			
Traditional elite	23.5% (1,084)	14.0%	14.2% (388,175)
Secular	69.8% (3,224)	81.3%	80.7% (2,203,630)
Cathedrals Group	6.7% (310)	4.7%	5.0% (137,675)
Domicile			
UK	88.5% (4088)	85.9%	76.2% (2,182,560)
International	11.5% (530)	14.1%	23.8% (679,970)
Mode of study			
Full time	97.9% (4,512)	95.9%	79.2% (2,266,580)
Part time	2.1% (97)	4.1%	20.8% (596,040)
Level of study			
UG	89.5% (4112)	71.2%	71.3% (2,042,310)
PGT	9.7% (447)	27.1%	24.7% (706,995)
PGR	0.6% (28)	1.7%	4.0% (113,315)
Subject area (CAH Level)			
Science	61.0% (2815)	65.7%	45.4% (1,298,765)
Not Science	39.0% (1803)	34.3%	54.6% (1,563,850)
Gender			
Female	63.5% (2934)	55.6%	57.1% (1,633,425)
Male	34.3% (1584)	42.7%	42.7% (1,221,780)
Other	2.2% (100)	1.7%	0.3% (7,410)
Age			
18–20	64.7% (2989)	36.6%	36.7% (1,049,265)
21–24	26.6% (1229)	27.8%	27.8% (795,330)
25+	8.7% (400)	35.6%	35.6% (1,017,915)
Ethnicity*			
Asian	15.6% (626)	13.3%	12.4% (264,660)
Black	2.7% (110)	3.9%	8.0% (171,620)
Mixed	3.7% (147)	4.2%	4.5% (96,675)
Other	1.6% (64)	1.5%	2.1% (45,625)
White	76.5% (3078)	77.1%	73.0% (1,563,145)
Religion			
Non-religious	36.8% (1667)	47.7%	47.0% (1,200,365)
Buddhist	1.3% (60)	1.0%	1.1% (28,840)
Christian	34.0% (1541)	31.5%	31.0% (790,680)
Hindu	2.9% (133)	2.5%	4.5% (116,205)
Jewish	0.6% (25)	0.6%	0.4% (11,495)
Muslim	10.7% (486)	8.1%	11.5% (294,420)
Sikh	0.9% (41)	0.7%	1.2% (29,485)
Other**	12.8% (580)	8.0%	3.3% (84,195)

*UK domiciled students only, for sample and HESA data.

**'Spiritual' or 'Any other religion or belief', excluding 'Not known'.

offered this definition of worldview to participants: ‘The term “worldview” describes a guiding philosophy or outlook on life, which may be based on a particular religious tradition, spiritual orientation, non-religious perspective, or some combination of these... You can think of your worldview as the lens that makes up how you view the world’ (adapted for brevity; reference to be added). Considering ‘worldview’ as broader than ‘just’ religion aids us in understanding barriers in communication related to faith-based identities in their complexity, including misunderstandings or prejudices between religious and non-religious perspectives. In relation to this article, the measures were not perfectly tailored to equality legislation, but speak to experiences directly relevant to it, particularly since the inclusion of ‘belief’ within the legislation indicates philosophical beliefs. For each of the three legislation areas, the two most relevant questions were identified from the IDEALS UK survey. For example, for harassment, we took data from one question about ‘mistreatment’ and one about ‘insensitivity’, not intending to conflate these two ideas, but instead using these as questions, which in distinct ways tell us something relevant about the wider phenomenon of ‘harassment’ (Table 2).

Table 2. Defining the six outcome variables.

Area of Equality Act	Variable Name	Question	Values
Harassment	Mistreated on Campus	While enrolled at your university, how often have you been mistreated on campus because of your worldview or religion?	Never Rarely Occasionally Frequently All the time
	Insensitive Comments	On this campus, how often have you heard/read insensitive comments about your worldview from: 1) Friends or peers; 2) Academic staff (lecturers, professors, etc.); 3) Campus staff or administrators	Never experienced Peer only Staff only Staff and Peer insensitive
Equal Opportunities	Safe Place	Please indicate the extent to which you agree with [this] statement: This university is a safe place for me to express my worldview	Strongly Disagree Disagree Neither Agree nor Disagree Agree Strongly Agree
	Accommodate Needs	Please indicate the extent to which you agree with [this] statement: Faculty and staff at my university accommodate my needs with regard to celebrating holidays and other important observances to my religions and non-religious worldview	Strongly disagree Disagree Neither agree nor disagree Agree Strongly agree
Good Relations	Felt Silenced	Regarding your interactions with people whose worldviews differ from yours, how often have you: Felt silenced from sharing your experiences with prejudice and discrimination	Never Rarely Occasionally Frequently All the time
	Provocative Encounters	While enrolled at the University, how often have you: 1) Had class discussions that challenged you to rethink your assumptions about another worldview; 2) Felt challenged to rethink your assumptions about another worldview after someone explained their worldview to you; 3) Had a discussion with someone of another worldview that had a positive influenced on your perceptions of that worldview	Not experienced Classroom only Experienced, but not classroom Experienced both

Population estimates and 95% confidence intervals were generated using the survey package in the software R (Lumley et al. 2024). Unweighted analysis is provided in the (Supplementary Material Tables S1–S6). Each variable was analysed by sub-groups relating to religion and university type, and all comparisons are significant ($p < 0.05$), unless otherwise stated. The specific sub-groups were:

- Religion: respondents' religious identity reported according to HESA (2024) categories: No religion, Buddhist, Christian, Hindu, Jewish, Muslim, Sikh, Other. 'Other' includes agnostic students, plus a range of other perspectives, including Jainism, Shintoism, and Spiritualism. At times, small sample sizes mean Buddhist, Hindu, Jewish, Muslim and Sikh are combined into a category 'Minority Religion'.
- University Type: we adopt an institutional typology from Guest et al. (2013) related to the founding period, institutional ethos, student demographics and geographical location. This presents five types of university: traditional elite, red brick, 1960s campus, new or 'post-1992' and Cathedrals Group (CG). Guest et al. (2013) and Aune et al. (2023) find differences by type in how universities approach religion, with traditional elite and Cathedrals Group giving Christianity, and sometimes religion in general, a privileged structural position (e.g., graduation services in religious buildings, better chaplaincy provision). This research also revealed similarities in religious identification and engagement among red brick, 1960s and new universities, so in this article, we use a threefold typology: traditional elite, secular (red brick, 1960s campus, and new universities combined) and the Cathedrals Group.

Findings

Harassment

Our findings suggest that the majority (77.1%) of students have never been mistreated on campus because of their worldview or religion. Almost nine-in-ten non-religious students report never experiencing this type of harassment and mistreatment. In contrast, religious students report higher levels of mistreatment, with only 62.2% of Christians and 68.0% of those from minority religions reporting never experiencing mistreatment (Table 3).

Of the 22.9% of students who have experienced some form of mistreatment, the majority have experienced this rarely (9.3%) or occasionally (7.6%). This pattern holds across different religious and non-religious groups, although 10.9% of Christians and 7.0% of those from minority religions report experiencing mistreatment on campus frequently or all of the time.

Our evidence suggests that these experiences of mistreatment are more prevalent at traditional elite universities, compared to secular and Cathedrals Group universities; one-in-three students have experienced mistreatment at traditional elite universities, and this falls to approximately one-in-ten at Cathedrals Group institutions.

We also asked whether students had heard or read insensitive comments about their worldview from peers or staff at their university. Note, 'staff' includes both academics and administrative professionals, and our analysis is unable to assess differences or similarities between these two groups. The majority (62.3%) of students have encountered an insensitive

Table 3. While enrolled at your university, how often have you: been mistreated on campus because of your worldview or religion (% with 95% confidence intervals).

	Never	Rarely	Occasion	Frequently	All the time
Overall (<i>n</i> = 4615)	77.1 (75.1–79.1)	9.3 (7.9–10.6)	7.6 (6.4–8.9)	4.6 (3.6–5.7)	1.4 (0.7–2.0)
Religion (<i>n</i> = 4530)					
Christian	62.2 (55.1–69.3)	12.3 (9.2–15.4)	14.7 (11.5–17.8)	9.1 (6.8–11.3)	1.8 (0.8–2.8)
Minority	68.0 (58.9–77.1)	16.4 (11.8–21.0)	8.7 (5.5–11.9)	5.2 (1.4–8.9)	1.8 (0.2–3.3)
None	87.5 (80.5–94.4)	5.8 (4.1–7.5)	3.5 (2.2–4.7)	2.0 (0.8–3.2)	1.2 (0.1–2.3)
Other	90.1 (76.0–100.0)	5.6 (3.2–8.0)	3.5 (0.4–6.6)	0.8 (0.0–1.6)	0.1 (0.0–0.2)
Uni Type (<i>n</i> = 4615)					
Traditional elite	66.1 (57.5–74.6)	14.9 (10.0–19.8)	12.0 (9.5–14.5)	6.2 (4.2–8.1)	0.9 (0.3–1.5)
Secular	78.3 (73.7–83.0)	8.6 (7.1–10.1)	7.2 (5.7–8.6)	4.4 (3.2–5.6)	1.5 (0.8–2.3)
CG	89.3 (67.3–100.0)	3.9 (1.2–6.6)	2.6 (0.8–4.4)	4.2 (1.7–6.7)	0.0 (0.0–0.0)

Table 4. On this campus, how often have you heard/read insensitive comments about your worldview from peers or staff (% with 95% confidence intervals).

	Not experienced	Peer only insensitive	Staff only insensitive	Staff & Peer insensitive
Overall (<i>n</i> = 4614)	37.7 (35.3–40.1)	20.8 (18.7–22.9)	3.2 (2.3–4.1)	38.3 (35.9–40.7)
Religion (<i>n</i> = 4529)				
Christian	29.0 (24.0–34.0)	13.6 (11.0–16.2)	2.7 (1.4–4.1)	54.7 (48.2–61.2)
Minority	29.6 (23.5–35.8)	18.8 (14.6–23.1)	5.0 (2.0–8.0)	46.5 (38.3–54.7)
None	45.2 (40.5–50.0)	24.6 (20.3–29.0)	2.6 (1.4–3.8)	27.5 (23.5–31.5)
Other	37.9 (29.1–46.7)	31.5 (22.8–40.3)	5.3 (0.9–9.8)	25.3 (18.6–31.9)
Uni Type (<i>n</i> = 4614)				
Traditional elite	23.9 (19.4–28.4)	18.8 (14.7–23.0)	6.0 (3.1–8.9)	51.3 (43.4–59.2)
Secular	39.4 (36.1–42.8)	21.6 (18.8–24.3)	2.8 (1.9–3.7)	36.2 (33.0–39.5)
CG	50.4 (36.0–64.9)	12.3 (6.2–18.4)	2.2 (0.0–4.9)	35.1 (19.1–51.0)

comment about their worldview while at university (Table 4). This most commonly originates from peers (59.1%), but, for significant numbers, also staff (41.5%).

Religious students are more likely to report experiencing insensitive comments. While around seven-in-ten Christians and people from minority religions had experienced at least one insensitive comment, this falls to just over half for students with no religion. As with the overall pattern, religious students were more likely to experience insensitive comments from peers (Christians = 68.3%; Minority Religion = 65.3%; No religion = 52.1%) than from staff (Christians = 57.4%; Minority Religion = 51.5%; No religion = 30.1%). Notably, over

half of Christians and people of minority religions had read or heard an insensitive comment about their worldview from a university employee.

Experiencing an insensitive comment was again more common at traditional elite universities, with around three-quarters of students reporting this. Students from other universities reported lower rates of insensitive comments, at 60.6% (secular) and 49.6% (Cathedrals Group).

Unlike previous studies (e.g. Weller, Hooley, and Moore 2011), we do not find a large difference between Christian students compared to other religions—in fact, contrary to studies that find minority religious students experience more harassment, we find a slightly higher proportion of Christians reporting mistreatment and receiving insensitive comments about their religion, however the latter finding was statistically non-significant. Because some minority religious subgroups, including Jewish students, were too small to reach definitive conclusions, our findings should not be used to argue that all minority religious groups experience less harassment than Christians. Indeed, surveys, which include higher numbers of Jewish students report that they are subject to high rates of harassment (Graham and Boyd 2011; Weller, Hooley, and Moore 2011). There is also the possibility that, as the proportion of students who are Christian is declining and as an experience of minority status is more common, these students feel more marginalised. Moreover, while non-religious students report being on the receiving end of negative comments less than religious ones, that over half of them have experienced insensitive comments about their worldview demonstrates that non-religious worldviews also attract negativity from others, including from staff (see Bowman 2017 on harassment of non-religious students in the US).

Equal opportunities

Turning to students' experiences of equal opportunities, we first looked at the inequalities in students reporting that their university was a safe place for them to express their worldview (see Table 5). Our evidence presents a largely positive picture, with very few students (6.8%) disagreeing, and almost three quarters (74.2%) agreeing. There were relatively small differences between different religious groups and between different university types.

It is notable that a substantial minority (19.1%) report 'Neither Agree nor Disagree'. The meaning of this response is difficult to interpret, but it could indicate that some students felt that their university was sometimes a safe place and sometimes not; that some places felt safe and others did not; or that they did not openly express their worldview at university. Given this, caution should be applied so as not to over-interpret the low number of students reporting explicit disagreement with the statement.

Similar findings arise from the question of whether faculty and staff accommodate students' needs around celebrating holidays or other observances connected to their worldview (Table 6). For example, only 6.4% of students felt that their needs were not accommodated in this way. However, students of minority religions (9.9%) were more likely to disagree with this statement than Christians (5.9%) or those of no religion (5.8%). This is unsurprising given Weller, Hooley and Moore's (2011) finding that as most universities organise their calendars in accordance with the western Christian one, it is difficult for some students to celebrate their own sacred events. The differences between students from different university types were relatively small.

Table 5. This university is a safe place for me to express my worldview (% , with 95% confidence intervals).

	Strongly Disagree	Disagree	Neither Agree nor Disagree	Agree	Strongly Agree
Overall (n = 4617)	1.7 (0.9–2.4)	5.1 (3.7–6.5)	19.1 (17.0–21.1)	55.5 (52.9–58.0)	18.7 (16.8–20.7)
Religion (n = 4532)					
Christian	1.3 (0.3–2.2)	5.2 (3.3–7.1)	19.1 (15.4–22.8)	52.1 (45.9–58.4)	22.3 (17.9–26.7)
Minority	0.7 (0.1–1.2)	5.7 (1.9–9.4)	22.8 (17.9–27.8)	54.3 (45.8–62.7)	16.5 (11.9–21.2)
None	1.5 (0.5–2.5)	5.1 (2.5–7.8)	18.2 (14.5–22.0)	58.5 (53.4–63.7)	16.6 (13.5–19.7)
Other	1.2 (0.0–2.8)	3.2 (0.9–5.6)	15.2 (10.4–19.9)	59.3 (47.3–71.3)	21.1 (14.6–27.7)
Uni Type (n = 4617)					
Traditional elite	1.5 (0.7–2.2)	4.9 (2.0–7.9)	18.3 (14.1–22.4)	54.3 (46.8–61.8)	21.0 (16.0–26.0)
Secular	1.7 (0.8–2.6)	5.2 (3.4–6.9)	19.5 (17.0–22.1)	55.7 (52.0–59.4)	17.9 (15.5–20.4)
CG	1.4 (0.1–2.8)	4.2 (0.0–8.3)	13.5 (2.3–24.7)	54.6 (38.7–70.4)	26.3 (16.2–36.3)

Table 6. Faculty and staff at my university accommodate my needs with regard to celebrating holidays and other important observances to my religious and non-religious worldview (% , with 95% confidence intervals).

	Strongly Disagree	Disagree	Neither Agree nor Disagree	Agree	Strongly Agree
Overall (n = 4615)	1.7 (0.7–2.6)	4.7 (3.6–5.8)	40.5 (38.1–43.0)	39.5 (37.0–41.9)	13.6 (12.0–15.3)
Religion (n = 4530)					
Christian	1.5 (0.3–2.6)	4.4 (3.0–5.8)	31.2 (26.6–35.7)	44.8 (38.7–50.9)	18.2 (14.3–22.1)
Minority	1.6 (0.8–2.5)	8.3 (5.4–11.3)	31.7 (25.1–38.2)	43.0 (35.2–50.8)	15.4 (10.9–19.9)
None	1.3 (0.0–2.9)	4.5 (2.5–6.6)	48.1 (42.9–53.3)	36.3 (31.7–40.8)	9.8 (7.9–11.7)
Other	0.2 (0.0–0.4)	1.8 (1.0–2.6)	48.4 (37.3–59.5)	35.0 (27.6–42.3)	14.6 (8.4–20.9)
Uni Type (n = 4615)					
Traditional elite	1.0 (0.4–1.6)	3.3 (2.4–4.3)	37.6 (30.8–44.4)	42.8 (36.1–49.4)	15.3 (11.2–19.5)
Secular	1.9 (0.7–3.0)	5.0 (3.6–6.3)	41.1 (37.7–44.5)	39.1 (35.7–42.5)	12.9 (11.0–14.9)
CG	0.1 (0.0–0.3)	4.7 (0.1–9.4)	39.1 (26.2–52.1)	35.2 (19.3–51.2)	20.8 (12.8–28.7)

As with the safe place question, a substantial minority of students reported that they ‘Neither Agree nor Disagree’. This is likely because many felt they did not have needs to be accommodated—this interpretation is supported by the fact that those with no religion were considerably more likely to select this response than Christians or those from minority religions. However, it is possible that some of these responses reflect nuance in their experiences, e.g. university staff accommodating some but not all of their needs, or accommodating their needs only to certain extents. Our questions did not address some of the specific equal opportunity issues, such as interest-bearing loans, chaplaincy provision or

religion-related awarding gaps explored by Avdukic et al. (2023), Aune, Guest, and Law (2019) and Codioli McMaster (2020), and more specific analyses are necessary to interrogate the different aspects that constitute equal opportunities.

Nevertheless, our focus on equal opportunities has revealed smaller inequalities than the findings on harassment. Few students (~6.5%) explicitly disagree that their universities are safe places for their worldview expression or that their needs are accommodated. However, the substantial minority of students reporting 'Neither Agree nor Disagree' cautions against an overly optimistic interpretation. We found little evidence of differences between different types of universities and different religious worldviews. The one exception was that those from minority religions were more likely to report university staff did not accommodate their religious needs.

Good relations

The final component of inequalities is good relations. We begin by considering how often students felt silenced from sharing their experiences with prejudice and discrimination at university (Table 7). While around six-in-ten students have never experienced this silencing and two-in-ten have experienced this rarely, 21.0% of students experience silencing on an occasional or more frequent basis. Religious students are particularly likely to report this experience – 50.7% of Christians and 46.6% of students from minority religions – compared with 31.1% of those with no religion. These findings provide statistical evidence that bolsters the silencing described in qualitative studies by Stevenson (2014) and Scott-Baumann et al. (2020). Similarly, when we consider those experiencing silencing frequently or all of the time, this applied to 13.1% of Christians, 8.6% of those from minority religions, and 3.9% of those with no religion.

In terms of university type, the pattern of silencing echoes the findings related to harassment. Silencing appeared to be more commonplace at traditional elite institutions, with one-in-two students experiencing this, compared with around 38.4% and 26.9% of students from secular and Cathedrals Group universities, respectively. Those reporting silencing frequently or all the time made up 12.0% at traditional elite universities, compared with 7.0% at secular and 5.8% at Cathedrals Group institutions.

The second aspects of good relations concerns whether students have experienced a 'provocative encounter', i.e. one in which students critically examine their own worldviews in relation to other worldviews (Mayhew et al. 2024). Previous research suggests provocative encounters are positively associated with the generation of more positive attitudes towards those of other religions (Mayhew et al. 2024; Peacock et al. 2023). In our data, there is a largely positive picture. While provocative encounters are not generally experienced frequently, the majority of students, 79.0%, have experienced a provocative encounter at some point at university (see Table 8). Of these, 58.4% experienced this in the classroom, 76.7% outside of class.

Our findings suggest that Christian students (85.6%) are the most likely to experience provocative encounters, compared with their peers from minority religions (76.3%) or with no religion (75.6%). These Christian students were particularly likely to experience this within the classroom (67.7%) compared with their peers from minority religions (51.5%) and those with no religion (54.7%). Those at traditional elite universities were the most likely to experience these provocative encounters (89.8%), compared with secular (77.3%) and Cathedrals Group (74.7%) universities.

Table 7. Regarding your interactions with people whose worldviews differ from yours, how often have you: Felt silenced from sharing your experiences with prejudice and discrimination (% with 95% confidence intervals).

	Never	Rarely	Occasionally	Frequently	All the time
Overall (<i>n</i> = 4613)	60.4 (58.0–62.9)	18.6 (16.7–20.6)	13.3 (11.6–15.0)	5.4 (4.5–6.3)	2.2 (1.5–2.9)
Religion (<i>n</i> = 4528)					
Christian	49.3 (43.0–55.7)	18.7 (15.3–22.2)	18.7 (14.6–22.9)	10.0 (7.7–12.4)	3.1 (1.8–4.5)
Minority	53.4 (45.3–61.5)	22.9 (17.3–28.4)	15.2 (10.0–20.3)	6.3 (4.0–8.6)	2.3 (0.4–4.2)
None	68.9 (62.7–75.2)	17.3 (13.9–20.7)	9.9 (7.6–12.2)	2.3 (1.3–3.2)	1.6 (0.6–2.6)
Other	66.6 (54.7–78.5)	18.2 (11.3–25.2)	9.8 (5.6–14.0)	4.9 (1.8–8.0)	0.4 (0.0–0.9)
Uni Type (<i>n</i> = 4613)					
Traditional elite	49.8 (42.5–57.0)	22.3 (17.4–27.1)	15.9 (11.2–20.7)	9.0 (6.1–11.9)	3.0 (1.4–4.6)
Secular	61.6 (57.4–65.8)	18.4 (16.0–20.8)	13.0 (11.0–15.1)	4.9 (3.8–5.9)	2.1 (1.2–2.9)
CG	73.1 (52.8–93.5)	11.2 (3.9–18.6)	9.9 (4.6–15.2)	3.4 (1.2–5.5)	2.4 (0.3–4.5)

Table 8. Experiences of provocative encounters at university, whether in the classroom or outside (% with 95% confidence intervals).

	Experienced both	Classroom only experience	Experienced, but not classroom	Not experienced
Overall (<i>n</i> = 4612)	56.1 (53.6–58.6)	2.3 (1.6–2.9)	20.6 (18.7–22.5)	21.0 (18.8–23.3)
Religion (<i>n</i> = 4527)				
Christian	65.9 (59.0–72.8)	1.8 (0.8–2.8)	17.9 (14.0–21.7)	14.4 (11.0–17.8)
Minority	49.1 (41.5–56.6)	2.4 (0.9–3.9)	24.8 (18.5–31.2)	23.7 (18.0–29.4)
None	52.1 (46.8–57.4)	2.6 (1.5–3.7)	20.9 (17.9–23.9)	24.4 (19.9–28.9)
Other	55.5 (44.6–66.4)	2.1 (0.0–4.3)	23.5 (17.8–29.2)	18.9 (11.1–26.7)
Uni Type (<i>n</i> = 4612)				
Traditional elite	68.4 (59.8–77.1)	2.5 (1.2–3.8)	18.9 (14.1–23.7)	10.2 (7.5–12.8)
Secular	53.7 (49.9–57.5)	2.2 (1.5–3.0)	21.3 (19.0–23.6)	22.7 (19.6–25.8)
CG	59.9 (41.2–78.6)	2.7 (1.0–4.5)	12.1 (4.5–19.7)	25.3 (15.2–35.4)

Discussion

Our findings that nearly two-thirds of students have experienced an insensitive comment about their worldview and more than one-in-five perceive that they have been mistreated because of that worldview are sobering, given that the HE sector has invested significantly during the last decade in addressing harassment. Despite investment in specifically religion-related harassment in 11 selected universities², religion-related harassment,

mistreatment, insensitivity and silencing remain a problem, suggesting that there is a need to 'mainstream' learning from those projects throughout the sector. That insensitive comments come from staff as well as from students' peers means university staffs require education about how to tackle harassment and misunderstanding alongside enabling freedom of expression for diverse religious and other worldviews. As the Higher Education (Freedom of Speech) Act 2023 comes into force, the government, higher education regulator the Office for Students, and other higher education bodies might also consider the broader range of mechanisms available for preventing religion and belief-based harassment in the UK's universities.

Our findings on equal opportunities appear the most positive of the three aspects of the Equality Act. Students mostly feel that university is a safe space to express their worldview and that staff accommodate their religious needs. It may be that universities have paid most attention to this aspect of the Equality Act, for example by increasing provision for chaplains and prayer spaces, as Aune, Guest, and Law's (2019) findings show, with more universities calling their chaplaincies 'multi-faith', and just over two-thirds having a permanent Muslim prayer space. Such spaces may be contributing to the safety students feel at expressing their worldview. Yet the fairly large numbers of students responding neither 'agree' nor 'disagree' to our equal opportunities questions suggest that while universities have improved their practice, there is still work to do: perhaps students feel safer in some spaces than others, and some staff support them to express their worldview while others do not.

The focus on good relations presents a mixed picture: good relations have not been fully achieved. Reassuringly, around three-in-five students do not feel silenced and four-in-five have experienced a provocative encounter. However, just over one-in-five students experience silencing on an occasional or more frequent basis, and a similar number have not experienced a provocative encounter. Further, we found evidence of some inequalities: Christian students were more likely to feel silenced. Similarly, those attending traditional elite institutions displayed a similar pattern: silencing was more commonplace than at other institutions, but so were positive, provocative encounters.

Why do students from minority worldviews report experiencing fewer provocative encounters, particularly in the classroom, compared to Christian students? It may be the case that, with increased awareness of the Equality Act, staff and students are slightly more reticent to interrogate the religious views of those who are minoritised, and more willing to challenge Christian students. While this, positively, means there is less insensitivity expressed, and that staff provide opportunities for Christian students to have the provocative encounters they need to develop positive attitudes to other religious groups (Peacock et al. 2023), it also means minoritised students have, and are given, fewer opportunities to engage critically with their own worldviews. Universities should learn to create opportunities for provocative encounters in and beyond the classroom, yet avoid these encounters becoming opportunities for harassment, insensitivity or silencing, since research finds that harassment, insensitivity and silencing are associated with a decline in students' ability to regard those with other beliefs positively (Mayhew, Rockenbach, and Dahl 2020). This is a particular issue in elite universities, where greater opportunities for debate between faith groups might contribute to an increase in negative experiences. Indeed, this may be one key unintended consequence of the Equality Act's efforts to enable communication and debate between students of different protected characteristics: encouraging debate creates more opportunity for misunderstanding and mistreatment, if debate becomes, or is interpreted as, harassment.

Students' religion or worldview makes a difference to how they experience university, with non-religious students having the most positive experiences and religious students the most negative. By religious group, Christian students are sometimes more likely to report more negative treatment than students from minority religions, but concerning the university accommodating religious holidays and other worldview-related observances, students from minority religions are more likely to report negative treatment. Therefore, universities should not assume that all religious students have the same experience, nor should they think that negative treatment is something that only certain groups are subjected to; the greater focus that student organisations have given to Islamophobia and antisemitism may make universities less likely to see it as important to tackle other types of religion-related discrimination. Negative experiences reported by non-religious students should not be ignored, and the Equality Act's language of 'religion or belief' enables those whose beliefs are not religious to have their experiences of prejudice taken seriously.

Our findings about university type are also original. This article's systematic examination of the significance of university type offers a new direction for future analysis. At traditional elite universities harassment, silencing and insensitive comments are much more common than at Cathedrals Group or secular universities. This may be because of the style of teaching, more debating, religious and political societies, and the higher proportion of privately educated students schooled in the culture of debate, mockery and peer victimisation (von Stumm and Plomin 2021). Students at elite institutions tend to be more economically privileged, with more time to spend debating ideas. But the one positive aspect of good relations that is also more common at elite institutions is provocative encounters, where students critically examine their worldview in the light of others'. As our typology reflects universities' history (including religious history) in a way that other typologies (such as Mission Groups) do not, it presents a promising direction for HE scholars studying inequalities obscured by other approaches.

Why haven't the Equality Act's intentions for religion or belief equality and good relations been realised? Elgström's work on the implementation of gender equality policies, introduced above, is relevant. During implementation, 'bureaucratic inertia', a 'lack of knowledge' or 'norm resistance' (p.469) might have happened. Some university staff likely resisted the Act, as there would be a conflict between the new norms and their previous practices and values—for instance, the value of freedom of speech, academic freedom, or secularity (the assumption that religion should be confined to the private sphere). Since Dinham and Jones' study, more senior managers have probably come to regard religion as part of 'an "equality and diversity" brief' (Dinham and Jones 2012, 192), and so responsibility for religion may be given to an EDI officer (who may not have religious expertise), a chaplain (who may not have EDI expertise), HR or student services.

Given the importance of 'norm entrepreneurs' at the start of the process of adopting a new norm, who are these for religion or belief, and how influential are they? They could be religious studies academics, chaplains or EDI officers. This likely varies between different types of institutions. Traditional elite or Cathedrals Group universities may have more influential norm entrepreneurs, with more prominent and better-funded chaplains, who are sometimes managed by a member of senior management (Aune et al. 2023). This may influence norm diffusion and could explain why we found some increased evidence of religion or belief equality in these types of university—including less mistreatment and insensitive comments at Cathedrals Group universities and more

provocative encounters at traditional elite universities. However, we also found countervailing trends: traditional elite universities had the most harassment, silencing and insensitive comments, so the presence of influential religion or belief norm entrepreneurs can only be part of the explanation for universities adopting the norm of religion or belief equality.

There is also the role of students to consider. Just as Purdam et al. (2017) found that the Equality Act received a lukewarm welcome from the religious constituents who would have been assumed to champion it, it is likely that some students, individuals and groups, religious or otherwise, do not further the Equality Act's aims. For instance, an evangelical Christian or *Sunni* Muslim group wishing to convert others to their religion might not give time to forging interfaith relations, perceiving that as contrary to their mission. We would suggest that this complex and incomplete process of norm implementation outlined by Elgström helps explain why religion or belief equality has not been fully achieved, more than a decade after the passage of the Equality Act. We can also apply Ahmed's critiques of equality policies to religion and belief equality and ask whether the creation of religion and belief documents and plans—a responsibility of EDI officers and required by the Equality Act—conceals problems of inequality and discrimination against religious staff and students. Perhaps time and attention have been given to creating equality documentation that enables universities to portray themselves as advancing equality rather than addressing the realities of religion and belief harassment, discrimination or poor interfaith relations.

Ahmed (2012, 17) takes these ideas further *via* the notion of institutional equality and diversity policies as 'non-performatives', because 'they do not bring about the effects they name'. The equality laws culminating in the Equality Act brought about an 'equality regime' which may have been intended to overcome inequalities, but '*can be* an inequality regime given new form, a set of processes that maintain what is supposedly being redressed' (8). Equality law carries with it an assumption that the very act of legislating achieves equality, Ahmed argues, so that 'having a policy becomes a substitute for action' (2012, 11). The wider context is the rise of audit or performance culture in higher education (Strathern 2000). Equality has become 'embedded within performance culture' (Ahmed 2012, 85), making-documenting equality in a way that can be assessed a high priority, perhaps higher than the actual achievement of equality. Increasingly, schemes such as Athena SWAN and the Race Equality charter grade universities based on a long report documenting good equality practice, provoking critiques that they are 'a policy-scoring scheme' (Armstrong and Sullivan 2025) and not a rounded, nuanced assessment. Armstrong and Sullivan (2025, 235) also comment that, when considering Advance HE's work advancing equality in higher education, 'The protected characteristics of age and religion or belief seem to be largely ignored'.

While Ahmed's assessment, based on relatively small numbers of interviews with diversity staff conducted before the Equality Act, is bleaker than ours, it demonstrates the complexity of policy implementation in universities and how the prioritisation of documentary audit measures has obvious limitations as a strategy for tackling inequalities. That such 'paper-based' measures have become more popular during a period of financial decline across the HE sector is no accident; more complex interventions also have heavier resource demands. Nevertheless, given the gap between policy and practice evidenced above, the demand for qualitative research into equality solutions within universities could not be clearer.

Drawing on a large cross-university dataset, this article has been the first to examine students' experiences of religion or belief-related equality in universities in relation to the Equality Act's three foci (eliminating harassment; equal opportunities; and good relations). Our analysis shows that despite the positioning of religion or belief as a protected characteristic and diversity-friendly language such as 'multi-faith', inequalities remain, with some religious students especially vulnerable to unequal treatment. We contend that the complexity of policy implementation helps explain why religion or belief equality has not been fully achieved.

The limitations of this article are several. Our wider survey included many different questions that could have been included as proxies for harassment, equal opportunities and good relations; analysing responses to all of these would provide a fuller picture. Moreover, the study from which this data was taken was not designed to measure the success of the Equality Act, but was a wider study of how to build positive relationships between university students across religion and worldview diversity. Finally, COVID-19 lockdowns are likely to have impacted the experiences of some of the students surveyed, so their responses may be shaped by the changes the pandemic brought to the student experience.

Overall, the Equality Act appears to have supported students (and staff) in universities to improve their provision for and support of students of diverse backgrounds, religions and beliefs. Yet inequalities remain, especially in relation to harassment and good relations, and for religious students. As the government shifted from Conservative to Labour in 2024, the impacts of a complex policy climate on students of diverse religions and beliefs demand further interrogation.

Notes

1. The UK government plans to introduce sharia-compliant student finance in England, but this is not yet in place (Lewis 2024).
2. The OfS funded 11 university-based projects from 2018 to 2020 to tackle religion-related hate crime in universities.

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